

# Cosets and Lagrange's Theorem

## Road map

Let  $H$  be a subgroup of a group  $G$ . Multiplying every element of  $H$  by a fixed element of  $G$  produces a left or right *coset*. We shall prove carefully when two cosets are equal, show that cosets partition  $G$ , and count the pieces to obtain Lagrange's theorem. The chapter ends with complete left- and right-coset calculations in  $D_3 \cong S_3$ , including the example in which the two kinds of coset do not agree.

## 4.1 Left and right cosets

### Definition 4.1: Cosets

Let  $G$  be a group, let  $H \leq G$ , and let  $a \in G$ . The *left coset* of  $H$  represented by  $a$  is

$$aH := \{ax : x \in H\},$$

whereas the *right coset* represented by  $a$  is

$$Ha := \{xa : x \in H\}.$$

The representative  $a$  need not belong to  $H$ . The notation simply means that we multiply every element of  $H$  by  $a$ , on the indicated side. In terms of the translations introduced in Chapter 2,

$$aH = \ell_a(H), \quad Ha = r_a(H),$$

where  $\ell_a(x) = ax$  and  $r_a(x) = xa$ .

If  $G$  is Abelian, then  $ax = xa$  for every  $x \in H$ , and hence

$$aH = Ha.$$

For example, in the additive Abelian group  $\mathbb{Z}$ , if  $H = m\mathbb{Z}$ , then

$$k + m\mathbb{Z} = m\mathbb{Z} + k = \{k + mn : n \in \mathbb{Z}\}.$$

In a non-Abelian group, left and right cosets may be different. We will see an explicit example in  $D_3$  at the end of this chapter.

**Proposition 4.1: Every coset has the same size as the subgroup**

For every  $a \in G$ , left translation restricts to a bijection

$$\ell_a|_H : H \longrightarrow aH, \quad x \longmapsto ax.$$

Similarly,  $r_a|_H : H \rightarrow Ha$  is a bijection. Consequently,

$$|aH| = |H| = |Ha|.$$

This statement is valid for finite and infinite sets; for finite sets it is an equality of ordinary integers.

证明. The map  $x \mapsto ax$  lands in  $aH$  by the definition of  $aH$ , and it is onto because every element of  $aH$  has the form  $ax$  with  $x \in H$ . It is one-to-one: if  $ax = ay$ , the cancellation law gives  $x = y$ . Equivalently, its inverse is the restriction of  $\ell_{a^{-1}}$ , since

$$a^{-1}(ax) = x.$$

The proof for right translation is identical, with multiplication on the right. ■

## 4.2 When are two cosets equal?

Although a coset is written using a representative, the representative is not unique. The following criterion is the basic computational tool.

**Lemma 4.1: Equality criterion for cosets**

For  $a, b \in G$ ,

$$aH = bH \iff a^{-1}b \in H \iff b^{-1}a \in H$$

and

$$Ha = Hb \iff ab^{-1} \in H \iff ba^{-1} \in H.$$

证明. We first prove the criterion for left cosets.

*Forward implication.* Suppose  $aH = bH$ . Since  $e \in H$ , the element  $b = be$  belongs to  $bH = aH$ . Thus  $b = ax$  for some  $x \in H$ , and multiplication on the left by  $a^{-1}$  gives

$$a^{-1}b = x \in H.$$

This is the shortest proof. To reproduce the calculation in the handwritten notes, choose  $x, y \in H$  such that  $ax = by$ . Then

$$a = byx^{-1}, \quad b^{-1}a = yx^{-1} \in H.$$

Since a subgroup is closed under inverses,

$$a^{-1}b = (b^{-1}a)^{-1} \in H$$

as well.

*Reverse implication.* Suppose  $a^{-1}b \in H$ . Write  $x = a^{-1}b$ , so  $x \in H$  and  $b = ax$ . If  $y \in H$ , then  $xy \in H$ , and therefore

$$by = a(xy) \in aH.$$

This proves  $bH \subseteq aH$ . Moreover,

$$b^{-1}a = (a^{-1}b)^{-1} \in H,$$

so the same argument with  $a$  and  $b$  interchanged gives  $aH \subseteq bH$ . Hence  $aH = bH$ .

The criterion for right cosets is obtained by the same argument on the other side. For example,  $Ha = Hb$  implies  $a \in Hb$ , so  $a = xb$  for some  $x \in H$ , and hence  $ab^{-1} = x \in H$ . Conversely,  $ab^{-1} = x \in H$  means  $a = xb$ , from which  $Ha \subseteq Hb$ ; using the inverse  $ba^{-1} \in H$  gives the reverse inclusion. ■

#### A useful memory aid

For left cosets  $aH$  and  $bH$ , invert the element written on the *left*: test  $a^{-1}b$ . For right cosets  $Ha$  and  $Hb$ , invert the element written on the *right*: test  $ab^{-1}$ .

#### Example 4.1: Congruence classes in $\mathbb{Z}$

Take  $H = m\mathbb{Z} \leq \mathbb{Z}$ , using additive notation. The inverse of  $k$  is  $-k$ , so the left-coset criterion becomes

$$k + m\mathbb{Z} = \ell + m\mathbb{Z} \iff -k + \ell \in m\mathbb{Z} \iff m \mid (\ell - k).$$

Thus the cosets of  $m\mathbb{Z}$  are precisely the familiar congruence classes modulo  $m$ .

### 4.3 Congruence modulo a subgroup

#### Definition 4.2: Left and right congruence

For a fixed subgroup  $H \leq G$ , define *left congruence modulo  $H$*  by

$$a \sim_L b \iff aH = bH \iff a^{-1}b \in H.$$

Define *right congruence modulo  $H$*  by

$$a \sim_R b \iff Ha = Hb \iff ab^{-1} \in H.$$

#### Proposition 4.2

Both  $\sim_L$  and  $\sim_R$  are equivalence relations on  $G$ .

证明. We give every step for  $\sim_L$ .

1. *Reflexivity.* For every  $a \in G$ ,

$$a^{-1}a = e \in H,$$

so  $a \sim_L a$ .

2. *Symmetry.* If  $a \sim_L b$ , then  $a^{-1}b \in H$ . Since  $H$  contains inverses,

$$b^{-1}a = (a^{-1}b)^{-1} \in H.$$

Therefore  $b \sim_L a$ .

3. *Transitivity.* If  $a \sim_L b$  and  $b \sim_L c$ , then  $a^{-1}b \in H$  and  $b^{-1}c \in H$ . Closure of  $H$  gives

$$(a^{-1}b)(b^{-1}c) = a^{-1}(bb^{-1})c = a^{-1}c \in H.$$

Hence  $a \sim_L c$ .

For  $\sim_R$ , replace the tests above by  $ab^{-1} \in H$ . For instance, transitivity follows because

$$(ab^{-1})(bc^{-1}) = ac^{-1} \in H.$$

■

The equivalence class of  $a$  under  $\sim_L$  is exactly  $aH$ :

$$[a]_{\sim_L} = \{b \in G : a^{-1}b \in H\} = \{ax : x \in H\} = aH.$$

Similarly,  $[a]_{\sim_R} = Ha$ .

#### Theorem 4.1: Cosets partition the group

The distinct left cosets of  $H$  are pairwise disjoint and their union is all of  $G$ . The same is true of the distinct right cosets.

证明. Every  $g \in G$  lies in the left coset  $gH$ , because  $g = ge$  and  $e \in H$ . Thus the union of all left cosets is  $G$ .

It remains to show that two left cosets cannot overlap without being equal. Suppose

$$x \in aH \cap bH.$$

Then  $x = ah_1 = bh_2$  for some  $h_1, h_2 \in H$ . Rearranging,

$$a^{-1}b = h_1h_2^{-1} \in H.$$

The coset-equality criterion therefore gives  $aH = bH$ . Hence two left cosets are either equal or disjoint. The right-coset proof is analogous. ■

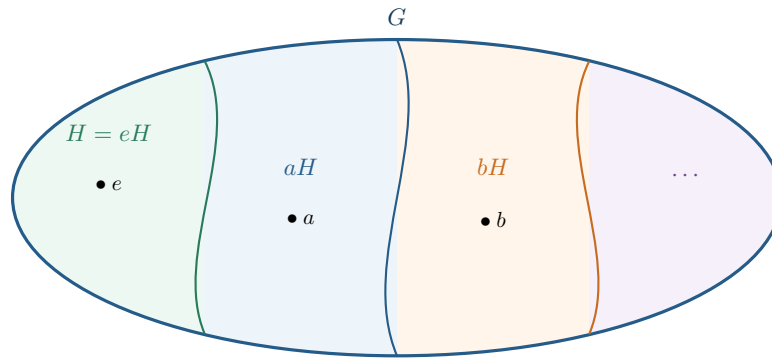


图 4.1: The subgroup  $H$  and its distinct left cosets form a partition of  $G$ . Each part has the same cardinality as  $H$ .

## 4.4 Coset spaces and index

### Definition 4.3: Sets of cosets

The set of all left cosets of  $H$  in  $G$  is

$$G/H := \{aH : a \in G\}.$$

The set of all right cosets is

$$H \backslash G := \{Ha : a \in G\}.$$

### A quotient set is not yet a quotient group

At this point,  $G/H$  means only a *set* of left cosets. A multiplication of cosets is well defined only under an additional condition—normality of  $H$ —which will be studied later. Also note the notation: the slash points away from the subgroup, so  $G/H$  contains left cosets and  $H \backslash G$  contains right cosets.

Because  $\mathbb{Z}$  is Abelian, left and right cosets of  $m\mathbb{Z}$  coincide:

$$\mathbb{Z}/m\mathbb{Z} = m\mathbb{Z} \backslash \mathbb{Z}.$$

For example,

$$\mathbb{Z}/3\mathbb{Z} = \{3\mathbb{Z}, 1 + 3\mathbb{Z}, 2 + 3\mathbb{Z}\}.$$

### Definition 4.4: Index

The *index* of  $H$  in  $G$ , written

$$[G : H] \quad \text{or equivalently} \quad |G : H|,$$

is the number of distinct left cosets of  $H$  in  $G$ .

For a finite group, the number of left cosets equals the number of right cosets. This will follow immediately from the counting formula below. There is also a direct bijection

$$G/H \longrightarrow H \backslash G, \quad aH \longmapsto Ha^{-1}.$$

Indeed, if  $aH = bH$ , then  $a^{-1}b \in H$ , and after taking inverses,  $b^{-1}a \in H$ . In particular  $a^{-1}b \in H$ , so the right-coset criterion applied to the representatives  $a^{-1}$  and  $b^{-1}$  gives  $Ha^{-1} = Hb^{-1}$ . The same formula applied twice gives the inverse map.

## 4.5 Lagrange's theorem

### Theorem 4.2: Lagrange's theorem

Let  $G$  be a finite group and  $H \leq G$ . Then

$$|G| = [G : H] |H|$$

and therefore

$$[G : H] = \frac{|G|}{|H|}.$$

In particular, the order of every subgroup divides the order of the group.

证明. Let the distinct left cosets be

$$a_1H, a_2H, \dots, a_rH, \quad r = [G : H].$$

By the partition theorem,

$$G = a_1H \sqcup a_2H \sqcup \dots \sqcup a_rH,$$

where  $\sqcup$  indicates a disjoint union. Every coset has  $|H|$  elements because  $h \mapsto a_ih$  is a bijection  $H \rightarrow a_iH$ . Counting the elements in the disjoint pieces gives

$$\begin{aligned} |G| &= |a_1H| + |a_2H| + \dots + |a_rH| \\ &= \underbrace{|H| + |H| + \dots + |H|}_{r \text{ terms}} \\ &= r|H| = [G : H]|H|. \end{aligned}$$

Dividing by  $|H| \neq 0$  yields the formula for the index. ■

### Proposition 4.3: Orders of elements divide the group order

If  $G$  is finite and  $a \in G$ , then

$$\text{ord}(a) \mid |G|.$$

证明. The cyclic subgroup generated by  $a$  is  $\langle a \rangle \leq G$ , and its order is precisely  $\text{ord}(a)$ . Applying Lagrange's theorem to  $\langle a \rangle$  gives

$$|G| = [G : \langle a \rangle] |\langle a \rangle| = [G : \langle a \rangle] \text{ord}(a).$$
■

**Proposition 4.4: Groups of prime order**

If  $|G| = p$  is prime, then the only subgroups of  $G$  are  $\{e\}$  and  $G$ . Moreover, every  $a \neq e$  generates  $G$ , so

$$G \cong \mathbb{Z}_p.$$

证明. For any subgroup  $H \leq G$ , Lagrange's theorem says that  $|H|$  divides  $p$ . The only positive divisors of a prime are 1 and  $p$ . If  $|H| = 1$ , then  $H = \{e\}$ ; if  $|H| = p = |G|$ , then  $H = G$ .

Now choose  $a \neq e$ . The subgroup  $\langle a \rangle$  contains both  $e$  and  $a$ , so it is not  $\{e\}$ . It must therefore be all of  $G$ . Thus  $G$  is cyclic of order  $p$ , and hence isomorphic to  $\mathbb{Z}_p$ . ■

## 4.6 Complete coset calculations in $D_3$

Recall the presentation

$$D_3 = \langle a, b \mid a^3 = e, b^2 = e, ba = a^2b \rangle = \{e, a, a^2, b, ab, a^2b\}.$$

Geometrically,  $a$  is a rotation through  $120^\circ$ , while  $b$  is a reflection. The relation  $ba = a^2b = a^{-1}b$  expresses the fact that performing a rotation and a reflection in the opposite order reverses the rotation.

The complete Cayley table from the handwritten notes is

| $\cdot$ | $e$    | $a$    | $a^2$  | $b$    | $ab$   | $a^2b$ |
|---------|--------|--------|--------|--------|--------|--------|
| $e$     | $e$    | $a$    | $a^2$  | $b$    | $ab$   | $a^2b$ |
| $a$     | $a$    | $a^2$  | $e$    | $ab$   | $a^2b$ | $b$    |
| $a^2$   | $a^2$  | $e$    | $a$    | $a^2b$ | $b$    | $ab$   |
| $b$     | $b$    | $a^2b$ | $ab$   | $e$    | $a^2$  | $a$    |
| $ab$    | $ab$   | $b$    | $a^2b$ | $a$    | $e$    | $a^2$  |
| $a^2b$  | $a^2b$ | $ab$   | $b$    | $a^2$  | $a$    | $e$    |

### 4.6.1 The subgroup $H_1 = \langle a \rangle$

Let

$$H_1 = \{e, a, a^2\} = \langle a \rangle \cong \mathbb{Z}_3.$$

Lagrange's theorem gives

$$[D_3 : H_1] = \frac{|D_3|}{|H_1|} = \frac{6}{3} = 2.$$

Thus there must be exactly two left cosets. One is  $H_1$ ; choosing  $b \notin H_1$  gives the other:

$$\begin{aligned} bH_1 &= \{be, ba, ba^2\} \\ &= \{b, a^2b, ab\}. \end{aligned}$$

Here  $ba = a^2b$ , while

$$ba^2 = (ba)a = (a^2b)a = a^2(ba) = a^2(a^2b) = a^4b = ab.$$

Therefore

$$D_3/H_1 = \{H_1, bH_1\}.$$

For the right cosets,

$$\begin{aligned} H_1b &= \{eb, ab, a^2b\} \\ &= \{b, ab, a^2b\}. \end{aligned}$$

As unordered sets,

$$bH_1 = \{b, a^2b, ab\} = \{b, ab, a^2b\} = H_1b.$$

Consequently,

$$D_3/H_1 = \{H_1, bH_1\} = \{H_1, H_1b\} = H_1 \backslash D_3.$$

In this example every left coset of  $H_1$  is also a right coset.

### 4.6.2 The subgroup $H_2 = \langle b \rangle$

Now take

$$H_2 = \{e, b\} = \langle b \rangle \cong \mathbb{Z}_2.$$

Its index is

$$[D_3 : H_2] = \frac{|D_3|}{|H_2|} = \frac{6}{2} = 3.$$

The three left cosets are

$$\begin{aligned} H_2 &= \{e, b\}, \\ aH_2 &= \{a, ab\}, \\ a^2H_2 &= \{a^2, a^2b\}. \end{aligned}$$

They are disjoint, each contains two elements, and together they contain all six elements of  $D_3$ . Thus

$$D_3/H_2 = \{H_2, aH_2, a^2H_2\}.$$

The three right cosets are different:

$$\begin{aligned} H_2 &= \{e, b\}, \\ H_2a &= \{a, ba\} = \{a, a^2b\}, \\ H_2a^2 &= \{a^2, ba^2\} = \{a^2, ab\}. \end{aligned}$$

The last equality uses the calculation  $ba^2 = ab$  displayed above. Hence

$$H_2 \backslash D_3 = \{H_2, H_2a, H_2a^2\} \neq \{H_2, aH_2, a^2H_2\} = D_3/H_2.$$

For example,

$$aH_2 = \{a, ab\} \quad \text{whereas} \quad H_2a = \{a, a^2b\}.$$

This is the promised concrete demonstration that left and right cosets need not coincide in a non-Abelian group.

#### What to retain from this chapter

1. Left and right cosets are translates:  $aH = \ell_a(H)$  and  $Ha = r_a(H)$ . Translation is a bijection, so every coset has the same size as  $H$ .



2. The equality tests are  $aH = bH \iff a^{-1}b \in H$  and  $Ha = Hb \iff ab^{-1} \in H$ .
3. Left and right congruence modulo  $H$  are equivalence relations. Their equivalence classes are the corresponding cosets, which partition  $G$ .
4. If  $G$  is finite, then  $|G| = [G : H]|H|$ . Hence subgroup orders and element orders divide  $|G|$ .
5. A group of prime order has no nontrivial proper subgroup and is cyclic.
6. In  $D_3$ , the cosets of  $H_1 = \langle a \rangle$  agree on the left and right, whereas those of  $H_2 = \langle b \rangle$  do not.